Lecture 4: Classification models

TECH6

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See GitHub repository for notebooks and data:

https://github.com/richardfoltyn/TECH6-H26

Contents

1 Classification models with Scikit-learn **1**
1.1 Motivation . . . 1
1.2 Example data for classification . . . 2
1.2.1 Creating a demo dataset . . . 2
1.2.2 Training and test samples . . . 5
1.3 Logistic regression . . . 6
1.3.1 Fitting a simple model . . . 7
1.3.2 Assessing model accuracy . . . 8
1.3.3 Digression: linear decision boundary . . . 12
1.3.4 Fitting a model with polynomials . . . 12
1.3.5 Cross-validating the penalty term . . . 14
1.3.6 Dedicated cross-validation with `LogisticRegressionCV` . . . 17
1.3.7 Validation curves . . . 18
1.4 Decision trees . . . 19
1.5 Random forest . . . 22
1.6 Comparing predictions on new observations . . . 25
1.7 Support vector machines (SVM) . . . 26
1.7.1 Linear kernel . . . 27
1.7.2 Gaussian kernel . . . 29
1.8 List of functions and classes used in this lecture . . . 32
1.8.1 Scikit-learn classification models . . . 32
1.8.2 Scikit-learn metrics and visualization . . . 32
1.8.3 Scikit-learn model selection and evaluation . . . 32

1 Classification models with Scikit-learn

1.1 Motivation

In the previous lecture, we studied how to predict continuous variables using linear models with shrinkage. We now turn to the other common machine learning task, classification. We study a simplified setting where we have only two classes (labeled 0 and 1) so that the outcome is $y_i \in \{0, 1\}$, and we want to train a model to predict the class membership of observations based on some set of features $\mathbf{x}_i$.

We begin with logistic regression, then study decision trees and random forests. After fitting and tuning these models, we compare their predictions on an independent test sample. We conclude the lecture with an optional section on support vector machines (SVM).

The composable API of scikit-learn makes it easy to try different classifiers in a processing and estimation pipeline. Nevertheless, each classifier has its own peculiarities, and we need to account for these differences in feature construction, scaling, and hyperparameters:

- Logistic regression uses an index that is linear in its input features. We can add polynomial interactions to capture nonlinear relationships. Decision trees and random forests, on the other hand, can capture nonlinear relationships without this expansion. With SVM, we can select a nonlinear kernel instead of adding polynomial features.
- We standardize features for regularized logistic regression and SVM so that their scales do not dominate the penalty or distance calculations. Decision trees and random forests do not require this scaling.
- Each classifier has its own hyperparameters. We use cross-validation to select their values.

1.2 Example data for classification

To compare classification methods throughout this lecture, we create an artificial sample with two features (x_{1i}, x_{2i}) that are mapped into a binary outcome $y_i \in \{0, 1\}$. We restrict our attention to only two features since this makes it easy to plot decision regions.

1.2.1 Creating a demo dataset

Assume that the data-generating process can be characterized as follows:

$$y_i = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } f(x_{1i}, x_{2i}) + \epsilon_i \geq 0 \\ 0 & \text{else} \end{cases}$$

where $f(\bullet)$ is some deterministic function of (x_{1i}, x_{2i}) and ϵ_i is an error term. For illustration, we'll assume that $f(\bullet)$ is a combination of trigonometric functions. The data-generating process used throughout this lecture is

$$f(x_{1i}, x_{2i}) = \sin(2\pi x_{1i}) \cos(\pi x_{2i})$$
$$\epsilon_i \overset{\text{iid}}{\sim} \mathcal{N}\left(0, \sigma_\epsilon^2\right)$$

The code below defines $f(x_{1i}, x_{2i})$:

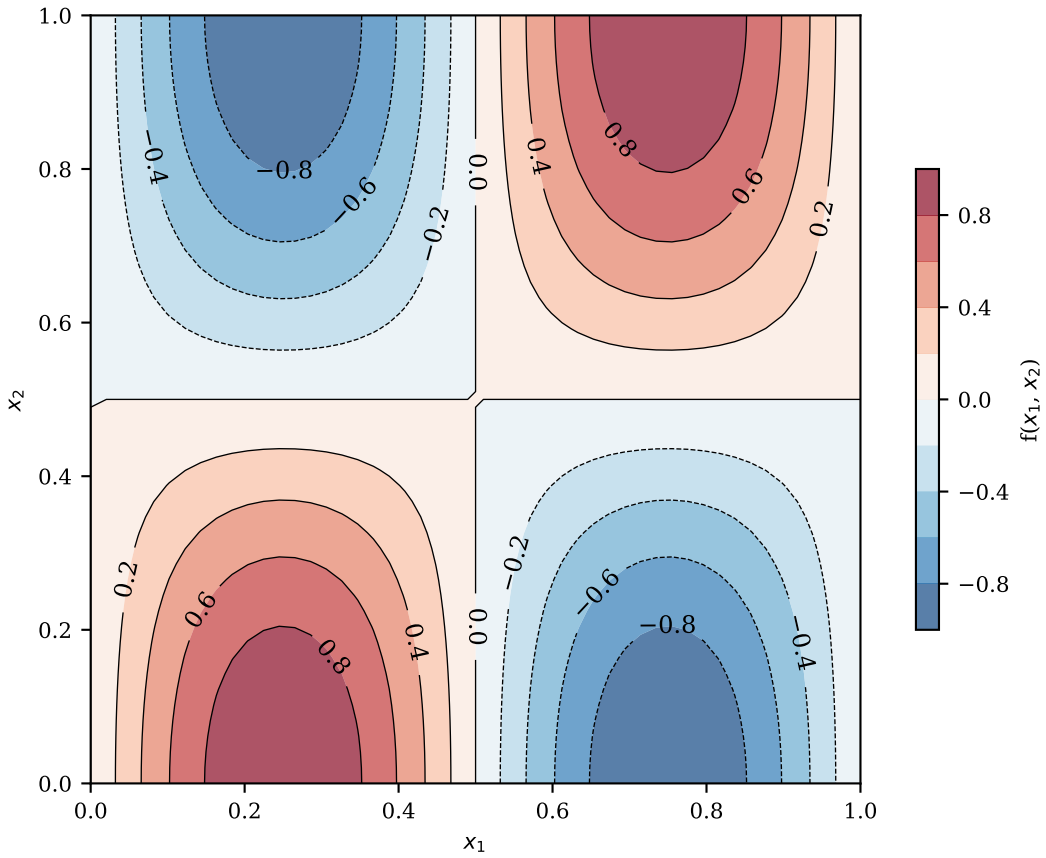
[1]:
```
import numpy as np


def f(x1, x2):
    """
    True function for classification examples
    """
    return np.sin(2 * np.pi * x1) * np.cos(np.pi * x2)
```

To keep the notebook clean and focused on the main ideas, in this lecture we'll use a helper module `lecture4_plots.py` which contains most plotting functions. To create a contour plot of the true relationship, we import the function `plot_true_relationship()` from this module and pass `f` as its argument.

[2]:
```
from lecture4_plots import plot_true_relationship

_ = plot_true_relationship(f)
```



As you see, this function takes on positive values in two quadrants (where y_i would be 1 without noise) and negative values in the other two (where y_i would be 0 without noise). Without some noise ϵ_i, class membership would be trivial to predict, so we next create a sample that incorporates noise.

To do this, we define the function `create_class_data()` which we'll use throughout the lecture to create a demo dataset for classification of the desired size:

[3]:
```
def create_class_data(N=100, sigma=0.2, rng=None):
    """
    Create synthetic data for binary classification examples.

    Parameters
    ----------
    N : int
        Number of observations to generate.
    sigma : float
        Standard deviation of the error term.
    rng : numpy.random.Generator, optional
        Random number generator to use.

    Returns
    -------
    X : array-like
        Feature matrix.
    y : array-like
        Binary response variable.

    """

    if rng is None:
        rng = np.random.default_rng(seed=1234)
```

```
    # Draw features from uniform distribution
    x1 = rng.uniform(0, 1, size=N)
    x2 = rng.uniform(0, 1, size=N)

    z = f(x1, x2)

    # Add noise to latent variable if noise variance is positive
    if sigma > 0:
        # Draw errors from normal distribution
        epsilon = rng.normal(0, sigma, size=N)
        z += epsilon

    # Convert latent variable to binary response variable with values 0 and 1
    y = (z >= 0).astype(int)

    # Stack features into matrix
    X = np.column_stack((x1, x2))

    return X, y
```

We can now use this function to create the demo dataset:

[4]:
```
# Sample size
N = 100

# Standard deviation of noise
sigma_eps = 0.2

# Create demo dataset for classification
X, y = create_class_data(N=N, sigma=sigma_eps)
```

We can verify that y_i takes on only two values with class labels 0 and 1:

[5]:
```
import pandas as pd

# Tabulate unique values of y and their counts
pd.Series(y).value_counts()
```

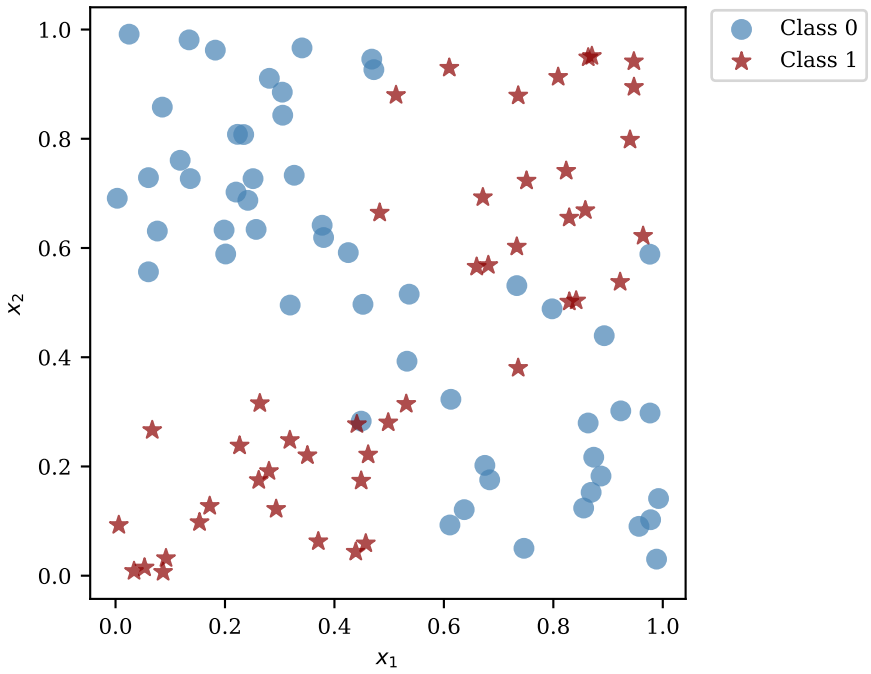
[5]:
```
0    54
1    46
Name: count, dtype: int64
```

We import the function `plot_classes()` defined in `lecture4_plots.py` to create a scatter plot of the sample. This plot uses different marker symbols based on the class labels.

The figure below visualizes the synthetic sample we have just created. As you can see, unlike in the previous graph, the class membership is no longer clearly split between quadrants due to the additional noise ϵ_i.

[6]:
```
from lecture4_plots import plot_classes

# Plot demo dataset for classification
_ = plot_classes(X, y)
```



1.2.2 Training and test samples

With real data, we would usually reserve a test sample before fitting or tuning our models. For classification, we can use a *stratified* split so that the training and test samples have approximately the same proportions of each class. We can do this with `train_test_split()` by passing the class labels through `stratify=y`.

The following cell demonstrates this split. We use names ending in `_demo` because these subsets are only an illustration:

[7]:
```
from sklearn.model_selection import train_test_split

# Fraction of the dataset to be used for testing
test_size = 0.3

# Demonstrate a stratified split for a dataset with a fixed sample size
X_train_demo, X_test_demo, y_train_demo, y_test_demo = train_test_split(
    X, y, stratify=y, test_size=test_size, random_state=1234
)
```

The class proportions in these two demo subsets are close, although their small sizes mean that the proportions need not match exactly:

[8]:
```
print('Distribution of classes in demo training sample:')
print(pd.Series(y_train_demo).value_counts() / len(y_train_demo))

print('\nDistribution of classes in demo test sample:')
print(pd.Series(y_test_demo).value_counts() / len(y_test_demo))
```

```
Distribution of classes in demo training sample:
0    0.542857
1    0.457143
Name: count, dtype: float64

Distribution of classes in demo test sample:
0    0.533333
```

```
1    0.466667
Name: count, dtype: float64
```

For our synthetic example, we can generate independent observations whenever we need them. We therefore use all 100 observations for training. After fitting and tuning the logistic regression, decision tree, and random forest models, we will generate a fresh test sample of 10,000 observations from the same process to compare their predictions.

Until that final comparison, we use training observations for the plots and metric examples. Training scores describe the fit to observations already seen by the model; they do not measure performance on new observations.

[9]:
```
# Use the complete synthetic sample for training
X_train = X
y_train = y
```

1.3 Logistic regression

Logistic regression is a well-established approach to performing classification tasks in econometrics. In the binary setting, we model the probability of the outcome being 1 as

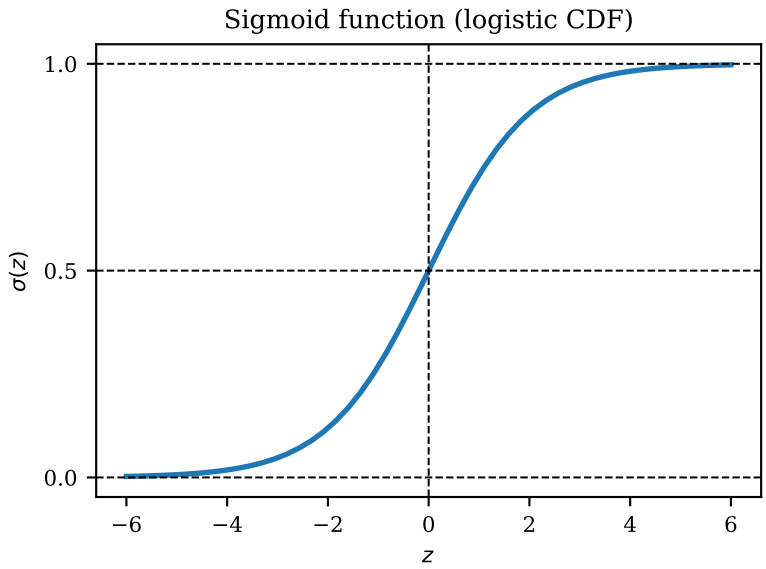
$$p(\mathbf{x}_i) \equiv \text{Prob}(y_i = 1 \mid \mathbf{x}_i) = \frac{1}{1 + \exp\left(-\left(\mu + \mathbf{x}_i'\boldsymbol{\beta}\right)\right)}$$

where the function on the right $\sigma(z) = \frac{1}{1+e^{-z}}$ is called the sigmoid function in machine learning or the logistic cumulative distribution function (CDF) in statistics and econometrics. Note that this function maps any (positive or negative) real value z into a value in the interval $(0, 1)$, and hence is well suited to modeling the probability that $y_i = 1$.

We can easily verify this by plotting the logistic CDF from `scipy.stats`, using the helper function `plot_sigmoid()` from `lecture4_plots.py`:

[10]:
```
from lecture4_plots import plot_sigmoid

_ = plot_sigmoid()
```



As you can see, the value of $\sigma(z)$ approaches 0 as z becomes increasingly negative, and it approaches 1 for large values of z.

In machine learning, logistic regression is categorized as a linear model (see the scikit-learn user guide on linear models) even though $\sigma(z)$ is clearly not linear. This is because the index z_i that enters the sigmoid function is assumed to be linear in the features $\mathbf{x}_i$,

$$z_i = \mu + \mathbf{x}_i'\boldsymbol{\beta}$$

Consequently, one can show that the log odds are a linear function of features:

$$\log\left(\frac{p(\mathbf{x}_i)}{1-p(\mathbf{x}_i)}\right) = \mu + \mathbf{x}_i'\boldsymbol{\beta}$$

Before we can fit the model using logistic regression, we need to define an appropriate loss function. This loss function is derived from the log-likelihood function of a binary logit model, defined as

$$\mathcal{L}(\mu, \boldsymbol{\beta}) = \sum_{i=1}^{N}\Big[y_i \log\big(p(\mathbf{x}_i)\big) + (1-y_i)\log\big(1-p(\mathbf{x}_i)\big)\Big]$$

The details underlying the derivation of this log-likelihood function are beyond the scope of this course. For our purposes, it's sufficient to know that in maximum likelihood estimation (MLE), the parameters μ and $\boldsymbol{\beta}$ are chosen so that the log-likelihood $\mathcal{L}$ of observing a given sample of $(y_i, \mathbf{x}_i)$ is *maximized*.

In machine learning, we typically minimize a loss function instead of maximizing a likelihood function. To derive the loss function L for the logistic regression, we simply take the *negative* log-likelihood function and find the parameters $(\mu, \boldsymbol{\beta})$ which *minimize* the loss L:

$$L(\mu, \boldsymbol{\beta}) = \underbrace{-\frac{1}{N}\mathcal{L}(\mu, \boldsymbol{\beta})}_{\text{scaled log-likelihood}} + \underbrace{\frac{r(\boldsymbol{\beta})}{NC}}_{\text{regularization}}$$

Moreover, we have already incorporated the scaled regularization term $\frac{r(\boldsymbol{\beta})}{NC}$, where $r(\bullet)$ is a function of $\boldsymbol{\beta}$, which is used analogously to Ridge regression and Lasso to shrink the parameters $\boldsymbol{\beta}$ and prevent overfitting. We divide both the negative log-likelihood and the penalty by N to match scikit-learn's convention for C. The fitted logistic regression parameters are thus

$$\left(\widehat{\mu}, \widehat{\boldsymbol{\beta}}\right) = \underset{\mu, \boldsymbol{\beta}}{\arg\min}\, L(\mu, \boldsymbol{\beta})$$

1.3.1 Fitting a simple model

We first fit logistic regression to the synthetic training sample without imposing any regularization, thus setting $C = \infty$. We'll cross-validate the regularization strength later.

Specifying the regularization strength

We proceed to fit the model using the `LogisticRegression` estimator from `scikit-learn`. `LogisticRegression` implements four different types of regularization which correspond to different functional forms for $r(\bullet)$ in the penalty term:

1. the *L1 penalty* we encountered with Lasso;
2. the *L2 penalty* from the Ridge regression;
3. the convex combination of these used for the *elastic net*; or
4. *no penalty* (this then corresponds to the classical binary logit used in econometrics to model discrete choice).

The following table lists the available regularization terms and the corresponding arguments for `LogisticRegression`. The argument `C` is the *inverse* penalty strength: *higher* values of `C` *decrease* regularization.

Penalty type	$r(\boldsymbol{\beta})$	`l1_ratio`	`C`
L1	$r(\boldsymbol{\beta}) = \|\boldsymbol{\beta}\|_1 = \sum_{k=1}^{K} \|\beta_k\|$	1	desired inverse penalty
L2	$r(\boldsymbol{\beta}) = \frac{1}{2}\|\boldsymbol{\beta}\|_2^2 = \frac{1}{2}\sum_{k=1}^{K} \beta_k^2$	0	desired inverse penalty
L1 and L2	$r(\boldsymbol{\beta}) = \rho\|\boldsymbol{\beta}\|_1 + \frac{1-\rho}{2}\|\boldsymbol{\beta}\|_2^2$	$0 < \rho < 1$	desired inverse penalty
None	0	0	`np.inf`

The default solver, `'lbfgs'`, supports L2 regularization and unpenalized models. For L1 or elastic net, we can use `solver='saga'`.

Fitting the logistic regression model

We first experiment with the simplest possible linear model of two explanatory variables where

$$z_i = \mu + \beta_1 x_{1i} + \beta_2 x_{2i}$$

so that the probability of observing class 1 is

$$p(\mathbf{x}_i) \equiv \text{Prob}\big(y_i = 1 \mid \mathbf{x}_i\big) = \frac{1}{1 + \exp\big(-\left(\mu + \beta_1 x_{1i} + \beta_2 x_{2i}\right)\big)}$$

For now, we omit regularization by specifying `C=np.inf`.

[11]:
```
from sklearn.linear_model import LogisticRegression

# Create logistic regression model without regularization penalty
lr = LogisticRegression(C=np.inf, fit_intercept=True, max_iter=1000)
```

Note that we also skipped input scaling here since we have only two features without polynomial interactions, and these only take values on the interval $[0, 1]$. Hence there is no need for scaling to address any potential numerical stability issues.

The following code fits the logistic regression model to the training sample:

[12]:
```
lr.fit(X_train, y_train)

# Retain the fitted linear model
lr_linear = lr
```

With `C=np.inf`, we estimate the coefficients using only the logistic loss. We introduce a finite value of `C` when we add regularization below.

1.3.2 Assessing model accuracy

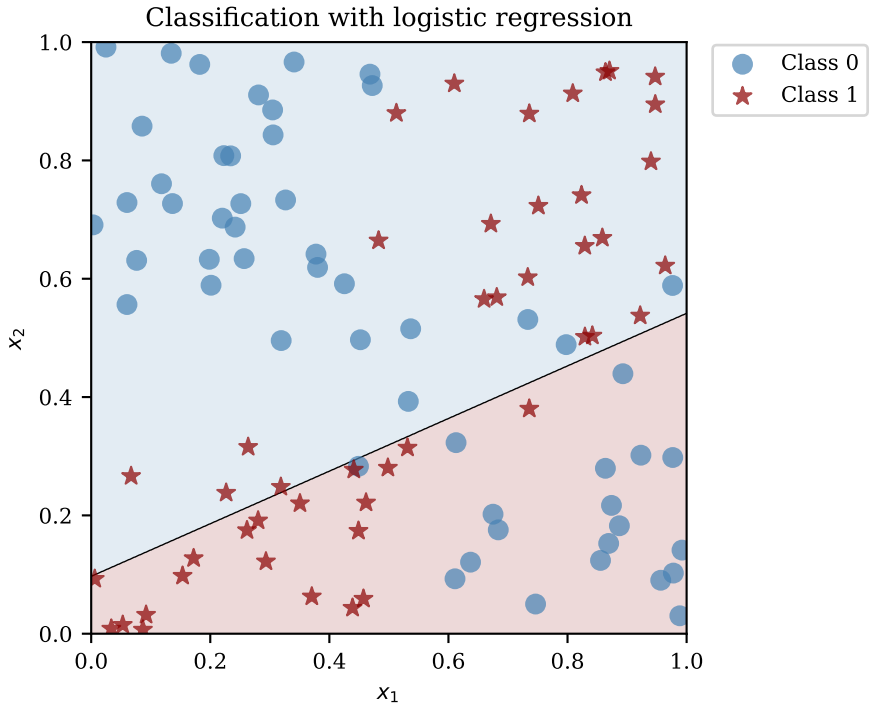
We first plot the decision boundaries implied by the fitted model. To this end, we use the helper function `plot_decision_boundary()` implemented in `lecture4_plots.py`. The function takes as argument an existing Matplotlib `Axes` object and adds the decision boundaries to an existing figure.

[13]:
```
from lecture4_plots import plot_decision_boundary

# Create x-values to evaluate decisions (used for either dimension)
xvalues = np.linspace(0, 1, 1000)

ax = plot_classes(X_train, y_train)
plot_decision_boundary(ax, xvalues, lr)
```

```
_ = ax.set_title('Classification with logistic regression')
```



The simple linear model misclassifies many training observations. For any combination of (x_{1i}, x_{2i}) in the blue area, it predicts $y_i = 0$; in the red area, it predicts $y_i = 1$.

We can compute accuracy, the share of correctly predicted class labels, using the estimator's `score()` method or the `accuracy_score()` function. These return the same result. We use training predictions here to illustrate the calculation and reserve the independent test comparison for later.

[14]:
```
# Predict class labels for the training observations
y_train_pred = lr.predict(X_train)
```

[15]:
```
from sklearn.metrics import accuracy_score

# Compute training accuracy
acc_train = accuracy_score(y_train, y_train_pred)
print(f'Training accuracy:  {acc_train:.3f}')
```

```
Training accuracy:  0.550
```

Alternatively, we can use the `score()` method directly to compute the same training accuracy:

[16]:
```
acc_train = lr.score(X_train, y_train)
print(f'Training accuracy:  {acc_train:.3f}')
```

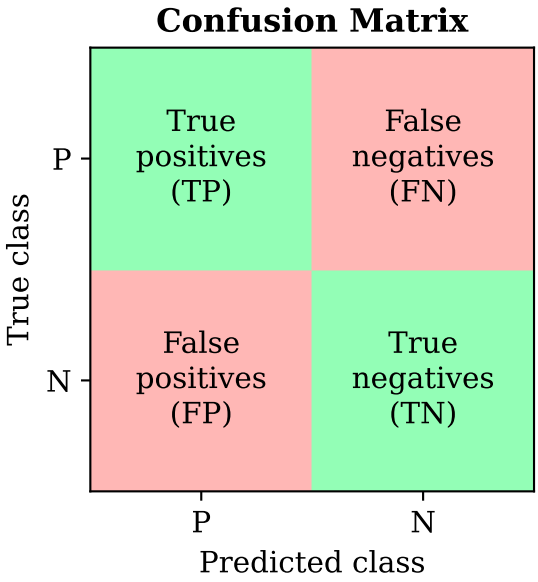
```
Training accuracy:  0.550
```

There are other metrics to assess how well the model predicts class labels. These usually combine the elements of the following confusion matrix in some way.

First, consider the confusion matrix for a generic classification problem (with labels `P` and `N` for `Positive` and `Negative`), plotted below:

[17]:
```
from lecture4_plots import plot_generic_confusion_matrix

plot_generic_confusion_matrix()
```



As you see, a classifier would ideally make predictions that fall in the green diagonal cells. Using the labels of this matrix, the accuracy score we have computed above is given by

$$ACC = \frac{TP + TN}{FP + FN + TP + TN}$$

However, we might be interested in different measures, for example *precision*, defined as

$$PRE = \frac{TP}{TP + FP}$$

which is the share of true positives among all observations that are predicted as positive by the model, or *recall*, defined as

$$REC = \frac{TP}{FN + TP}$$

which is the share of true positives among all observations that are truly positive in the data.

Another commonly used scoring metric is the so-called *F1 score*, computed as

$$F1 = 2\frac{PRE \cdot REC}{PRE + REC}$$

Which metric we use depends on the application.

Scikit-learn implements many commonly used scoring metrics in the module `sklearn.metrics`. We define `tabulate_training_metrics()` to compute and print these four metrics for our training predictions:

[18]:
```
from sklearn.metrics import f1_score, precision_score, recall_score


def tabulate_training_metrics(y_train, y_train_pred):
    """
    Print accuracy, precision, recall, and F1 score for training predictions.

    Parameters
    ----------
    y_train : array
        Observed class labels in the training sample.
    y_train_pred : array
        Predicted class labels for the training observations.
    """
    acc_train = accuracy_score(y_train, y_train_pred)
```

```
    pre = precision_score(y_train, y_train_pred)
    rec = recall_score(y_train, y_train_pred)
    f1 = f1_score(y_train, y_train_pred)

    print(f'Training accuracy:  {acc_train:.3f}')
    print(f'Training precision: {pre:.3f}')
    print(f'Training recall:    {rec:.3f}')
    print(f'Training F1 score:  {f1:.3f}')
```

[19]:
```
tabulate_training_metrics(y_train, y_train_pred)
```

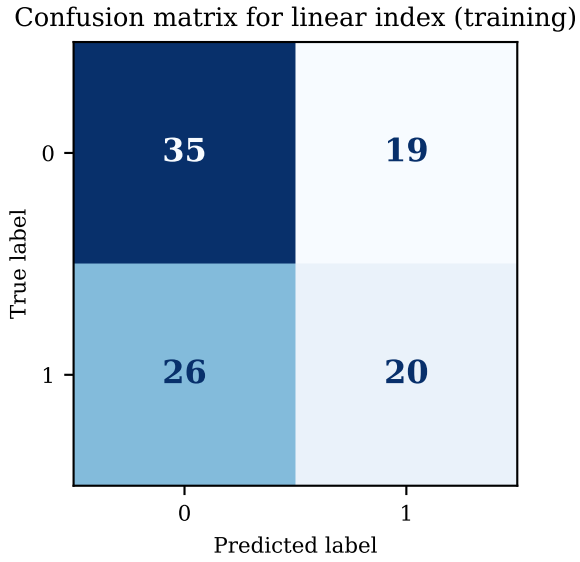
```
Training accuracy:  0.550
Training precision: 0.513
Training recall:    0.435
Training F1 score:  0.471
```

These metrics describe different aspects of the model's fit to the training observations. We will assess performance on new observations after fitting all main classifiers.

We can plot the confusion matrix using `ConfusionMatrixDisplay`. This plot can be created from predicted values or directly from an estimator. Here, class 1 is positive, and scikit-learn orders the labels as 0, then 1, so true positives appear in the lower-right cell. Below, we use the training predictions:

[20]:
```
from sklearn.metrics import ConfusionMatrixDisplay

# Plot confusion matrix for the training predictions
_ = ConfusionMatrixDisplay.from_predictions(
    y_train,
    y_train_pred,
    colorbar=False,
    cmap='Blues',
    text_kw={'fontsize': 12, 'fontweight': 'bold'},
).ax_.set_title('Confusion matrix for linear index (training)')
```



The confusion matrix shows that there is a sizable number of misclassified observations (the off-diagonal elements).

Class imbalance

In real applications, one class may be much rarer than the other. Suppose only 100 of 10,000 observations are positive, for example fraudulent transactions. A classifier that always predicts the negative class

achieves *99% accuracy*, but detects none of the positive cases: its recall is *zero*. We should therefore compare accuracy with the simple baseline of always predicting the most common class.

When missing positive cases is costly, we pay particular attention to recall. When false alarms are costly, precision also matters. F1 summarizes their tradeoff in a single number, but the appropriate metric still depends on the costs of different mistakes.

We can also use `balanced_accuracy_score()`, which averages recall computed separately for each class. In our example, the classifier that always predicts the negative class has balanced accuracy of 50%, since it identifies all negative cases and none of the positive cases.

1.3.3 Digression: linear decision boundary

You might wonder why the decision boundary plotted earlier is a straight line even though the sigmoid function is clearly nonlinear. This arises because `LogisticRegression` assigns predictions based on the most likely class as determined by the predicted probabilities of belonging to each class for each observation. We can predict these underlying probabilities using the `predict_proba()` method, for example for the first five training observations:

[21]:
```
# Predict probabilities for the first five training observations
lr.predict_proba(X_train)[:5]
```

[21]:
```
array([[0.44213578, 0.55786422],
       [0.58697448, 0.41302552],
       [0.4489442 , 0.5510558 ],
       [0.49038364, 0.50961636],
       [0.56350387, 0.43649613]])
```

Based on these predicted probabilities, `LogisticRegression` assigns the predicted class as the most likely outcome. With only two categories, $\widehat{y}_i = 1$ is therefore predicted whenever the value in the second column is larger than 0.5. Using the fitted coefficients in the sigmoid function, we have

$$\begin{aligned}
\widehat{y}_i = 1 &\iff \sigma(\widehat{\mu} + \widehat{\beta}_1 x_{1i} + \widehat{\beta}_2 x_{2i}) > 0.5 \\
&\iff \frac{1}{1 + \exp\left(-\widehat{\mu} - \widehat{\beta}_1 x_{1i} - \widehat{\beta}_2 x_{2i}\right)} > 0.5 \\
&\iff \exp\left(-\widehat{\mu} - \widehat{\beta}_1 x_{1i} - \widehat{\beta}_2 x_{2i}\right) < 1 \\
&\iff \widehat{\mu} + \widehat{\beta}_1 x_{1i} + \widehat{\beta}_2 x_{2i} > 0 \\
&\iff x_{2i} < -\frac{\widehat{\mu}}{\widehat{\beta}_2} - \frac{\widehat{\beta}_1}{\widehat{\beta}_2} x_{1i}
\end{aligned}$$

The last step above follows because $\widehat{\beta}_2 < 0$ in this example, as you can verify by checking the attribute `lr.coef_`. The takeaway from these derivations is that any combination of features x_{1i}, x_{2i} is mapped to $\widehat{y}_i = 1$ if x_{2i} lies underneath the line defined by $-\frac{\widehat{\mu}}{\widehat{\beta}_2} - \frac{\widehat{\beta}_1}{\widehat{\beta}_2} x_{1i}$, and therefore the decision boundary is a *straight line*.

1.3.4 Fitting a model with polynomials

We now extend the simple model and approximate the nonlinear relationship between y_i and $\mathbf{x}_i$ using polynomials in x_{1i}, x_{2i} where we allow for interaction terms up to some upper bound:

$$z_i = \mu + \beta_1 x_{1i} + \beta_2 x_{2i} + \beta_3 x_{1i} x_{2i} + \beta_4 x_{1i}^2 + \beta_5 x_{2i}^2 + \dots$$

[22]:
```
from sklearn.pipeline import make_pipeline
from sklearn.preprocessing import PolynomialFeatures, StandardScaler
```

```
# Maximum polynomial degree
degree = 5

# Create logistic regression model without regularization penalty
lr = LogisticRegression(fit_intercept=True, C=np.inf, max_iter=1_000)

# Create pipeline with polynomial features and logistic regression
pipe_lr = make_pipeline(
    StandardScaler(),
    PolynomialFeatures(degree=degree, include_bias=False),
    StandardScaler(),
    lr,
)
```

At this point we don't strictly need to scale the polynomial features using the `StandardScaler`, but this will be necessary below when we introduce a regularization term.

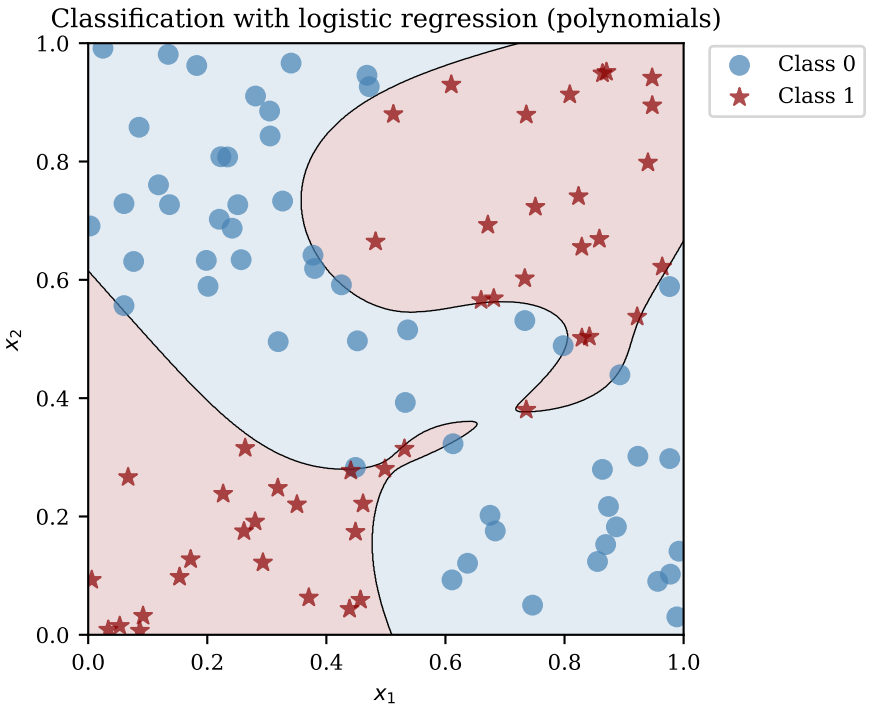
We can now fit the model on the training data:

[23]:
```
pipe_lr.fit(X_train, y_train)

# Retain the unpenalized polynomial pipeline
lr_pipe_unpenalized = pipe_lr
```

Using the functions defined above, we can plot the decision boundaries of this more complex model:

[24]:
```
# Create x-values used to evaluate decisions
xvalues = np.linspace(0, 1, 1000)
ax = plot_classes(X_train, y_train)
plot_decision_boundary(ax, xvalues, pipe_lr)
_ = ax.set_title('Classification with logistic regression (polynomials)')
```



The polynomial features allow a more flexible decision boundary. We can compute the same metrics to see how well this model fits the training observations:

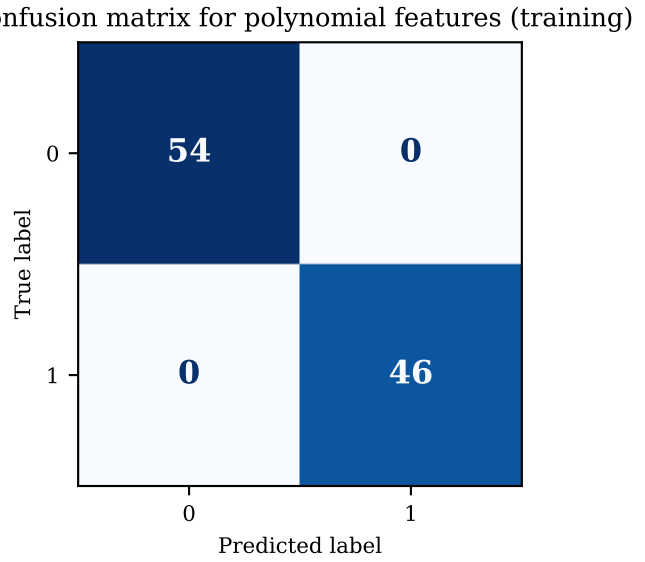
[25]:
```
# Predict class labels for the training observations
y_train_pred = pipe_lr.predict(X_train)
```

```
tabulate_training_metrics(y_train, y_train_pred)
```

```
Training accuracy:  1.000
Training precision: 1.000
Training recall:    1.000
Training F1 score:  1.000
```

The confusion matrix summarizes these training predictions. A good fit to the training observations can still come with overfitting, so we will compare the models on independent test observations later.

[26]:
```
# Plot confusion matrix for the training predictions
_ = ConfusionMatrixDisplay.from_predictions(
    y_train,
    y_train_pred,
    colorbar=False,
    cmap='Blues',
    text_kw={'fontsize': 12, 'fontweight': 'bold'},
).ax_.set_title('Confusion matrix for polynomial features (training)')
```



As you see from the above metrics and the confusion matrix, the model with a degree 5 polynomial predicts *every single* observation in the training sample correctly. However, the diagnostic plot above suggests overfitting, as the decision boundaries are highly irregular and follow the training observations too closely.

1.3.5 Cross-validating the penalty term

So far, we haven't introduced a regularization term when fitting the logistic regression. Analogous to Ridge regression and Lasso, regularization can help prevent overfitting. Since we don't know the best regularization parameter C, we use `GridSearchCV()` around the complete pipeline.

We first define a cross-validation splitter and scoring metric that we will use for all models in this lecture:

[27]:
```
from sklearn.model_selection import StratifiedKFold

# Reproducible shuffled folds that preserve the class proportions
cv = StratifiedKFold(n_splits=5, shuffle=True, random_state=1234)

# Define the scoring metric for model evaluation
```

```
scoring = 'accuracy'
```

We define five folds with `StratifiedKFold()` to keep the class proportions approximately equal across folds. We set `shuffle=True` and `random_state=1234` to shuffle observations within each class and make the splits reproducible. Shuffling is not needed for this example because our training observations were already drawn independently in random order. We include it to make the split strategy explicit.

Stratified splitting preserves class proportions across subsets; it does not remove the imbalance or make accuracy informative about rare positive cases. With severe imbalance, we also need enough minority-class observations for the chosen number of CV folds.

We set `scoring='accuracy'` because our classes are approximately balanced and we count mistakes in both classes equally.

If we choose balanced accuracy or F1 for an application, we can pass `scoring='balanced_accuracy'` or `scoring='f1'` to `GridSearchCV`. We choose the scoring rule before tuning and report the relevant metrics on independent test observations.

We construct the estimation pipeline as usual: The first scaler standardizes the original features, and the second standardizes the polynomial features. In each fold, we fit each `StandardScaler` using only the training observations and apply those fitted means and standard deviations to the validation observations. Fitting either scaler on the entire training sample before cross-validation would let the validation observations influence the transformation used for fitting. This is *data leakage*, even though the scalers do not use the labels. Our synthetic sample is no exception: the polynomial columns' sample means and standard deviations still depend on the observations. The polynomial expansion itself uses fixed powers and learns no means or scales, but we keep all preprocessing inside the pipeline so the complete procedure is cross-validated.

For this example, we use the L2 penalty, selected with `l1_ratio=0.0`. The complete pipeline is defined as follows:

[28]:
```
# Pipeline with polynomial features, scaling, and L2 logistic regression
pipe_lr = make_pipeline(
    StandardScaler(),
    PolynomialFeatures(include_bias=False),
    StandardScaler(),
    LogisticRegression(l1_ratio=0.0, max_iter=1_000),
)
```

We try 100 values of C, spaced evenly on a log scale between 10^{-2} and 10^{2}. The pipeline parameter `logisticregression__C` uses the step name and parameter name separated by a double underscore. Additionally, we cross-validate the polynomial degree, which is specified by the pipeline parameter `polynomialfeatures__degree`. We try degrees 1 through 5.

[29]:
```
from sklearn.model_selection import GridSearchCV

# Candidate inverse penalty strengths, spaced uniformly in logs on [1e-2, 1e2]
c_values = np.logspace(-2, 2, 100)

# Candidate polynomial degrees
degrees = [1, 2, 3, 4, 5]

# Define the parameter grid for GridSearchCV
param_grid = {'polynomialfeatures__degree': degrees, 'logisticregression__C': c_values}

# Define the GridSearchCV object for hyperparameter tuning
lr_cv = GridSearchCV(
    estimator=pipe_lr,
    param_grid=param_grid,
    scoring=scoring,
    cv=cv,
    refit=True,
    n_jobs=4,
```

```
)
```

We run the search on the original training features. `GridSearchCV` fits both scalers and the classifier separately within each fold:

[30]:
```
# Run cross-validation on the original, unscaled features
lr_cv.fit(X_train, y_train)
```

Once cross-validation is complete, we can retrieve the selected C and polynomial degree from `best_params_` and the corresponding mean validation accuracy from `best_score_`:

[31]:
```
print(f'Best C:                    {lr_cv.best_params_["logisticregression__C"]:.4f}')
print(f'Best polynomial degree:    {lr_cv.best_params_["polynomialfeatures__degree"]}')
print(f'Best validation accuracy: {lr_cv.best_score_:.3f}')
```

```
Best C:                    0.6579
Best polynomial degree:    4
Best validation accuracy: 0.910
```

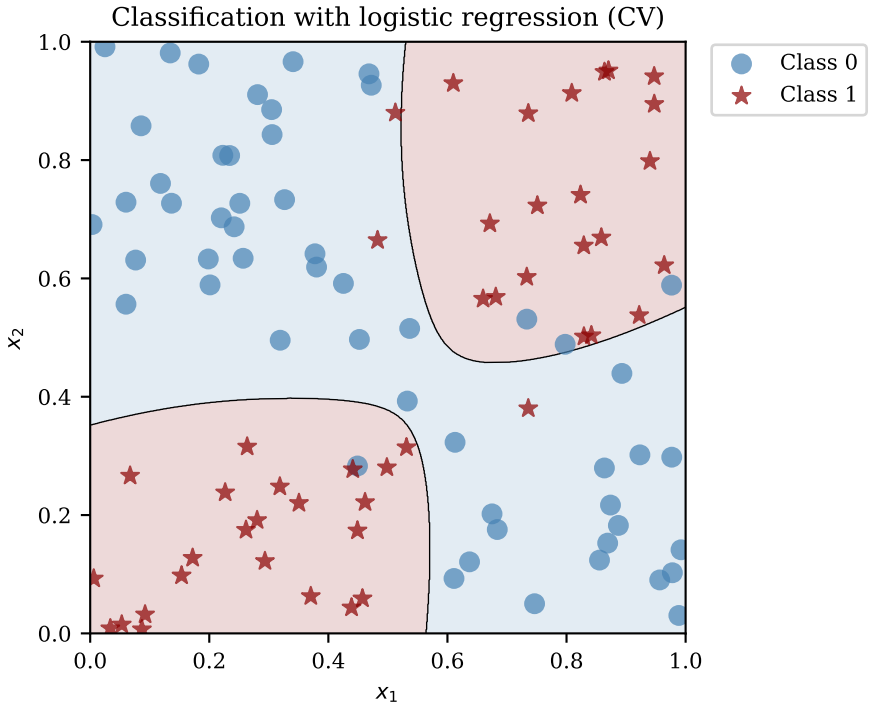
Note that unlike the penalty parameters used for Ridge and Lasso, C in this case is the *inverse* penalty strength, i.e., larger values of C introduce a *smaller* penalty.

With `refit=True`, `GridSearchCV` refits the selected pipeline on the entire training sample and stores it in `best_estimator_`. We can use that pipeline directly for predictions and plots; it already contains the fitted polynomial expansion, scalers, and classifier.

[32]:
```
# Recover the pipeline refitted with the selected C and degree
lr_pipe_opt = lr_cv.best_estimator_
```

We reuse the plotting code from above to plot the decision boundaries for the optimal model:

[33]:
```
# Create x-values used to evaluate decisions
xvalues = np.linspace(0, 1, 1000)
ax = plot_classes(X_train, y_train)
plot_decision_boundary(ax, xvalues, lr_pipe_opt)
_ = ax.set_title('Classification with logistic regression (CV)')
```



We can compute the selected pipeline's training accuracy, precision, recall, and F1 score using the same functions as before:

[34]:
```
# Compute training metrics for the cross-validated model
y_train_pred = lr_pipe_opt.predict(X_train)

tabulate_training_metrics(y_train, y_train_pred)
```

```
Training accuracy:  0.930
Training precision: 0.915
Training recall:    0.935
Training F1 score:  0.925
```

All tuning uses only the training sample. We leave the independent test comparison until after the random forest section, when all main models have been fitted.

1.3.6 Dedicated cross-validation with `LogisticRegressionCV`

The dedicated `LogisticRegressionCV()` class can reuse coefficient estimates along the regularization path, making it faster than fitting each candidate independently. It is useful when no preprocessing needs to be learned within the folds.

For this illustration, we construct polynomial features directly from the original inputs, without fitting a scaler. We keep degree 4, which the preceding grid search selected. `LogisticRegressionCV` tunes the regularization strength for a fixed feature matrix, so it does not also cross-validate the polynomial degree.

The earlier grid search included scaling, which changes how regularization acts on the polynomial coefficients. Degree 4 is therefore not guaranteed to be optimal for this specification, and the selected C values are not directly comparable.

We specify accuracy scoring explicitly.

With `use_legacy_attributes=False`, `C_` is a scalar, which we can format directly.

[35]:
```
from sklearn.linear_model import LogisticRegressionCV

# Candidate inverse penalty strengths, spaced uniformly in logs on [1e-2, 1e2]
c_values_dedicated = np.logspace(-2, 2, 100)

# Polynomial features with degree 4 selected by the preceding grid search
poly_fixed = PolynomialFeatures(degree=4, include_bias=False)
X_train_fixed = poly_fixed.fit_transform(X_train)

# Dedicated cross-validation on these fixed polynomial features
lr_cv_dedicated = LogisticRegressionCV(
    Cs=c_values_dedicated,
    cv=cv,
    scoring=scoring,
    l1_ratios=(0.0,),
    max_iter=1_000,
    n_jobs=4,
    use_legacy_attributes=False,
).fit(X_train_fixed, y_train)

print(f'LogisticRegressionCV selected C: {lr_cv_dedicated.C_:.4f}')
```

```
LogisticRegressionCV selected C: 1.2619
```

1.3.7 Validation curves

A validation curve plots a model's validation score against a hyperparameter, here C. We use `validation_curve()` to fit the complete pipeline within each fold and compute training and validation accuracy for a range of values of C. We define a separate pipeline with the polynomial degree fixed at 4, as selected by the preceding grid search, since we want to focus on the effect of C on the model's performance.

The argument `param_name` identifies the parameter to vary. For our pipeline, `logisticregression__C` combines the step name and parameter name with a double underscore. The argument `param_range` supplies the candidate values. We use the same stratified folds and accuracy scoring rule as in our grid search:

[36]:
```
from sklearn.model_selection import validation_curve

# Pipeline for the validation curve with polynomial degree fixed at 4
pipe_lr_validation = make_pipeline(
    StandardScaler(),
    PolynomialFeatures(degree=4, include_bias=False),
    StandardScaler(),
    LogisticRegression(l1_ratio=0.0, max_iter=1_000),
)

# Define range of values for C, spaced uniformly in logs
param_range = np.logspace(-4, 4, 100)

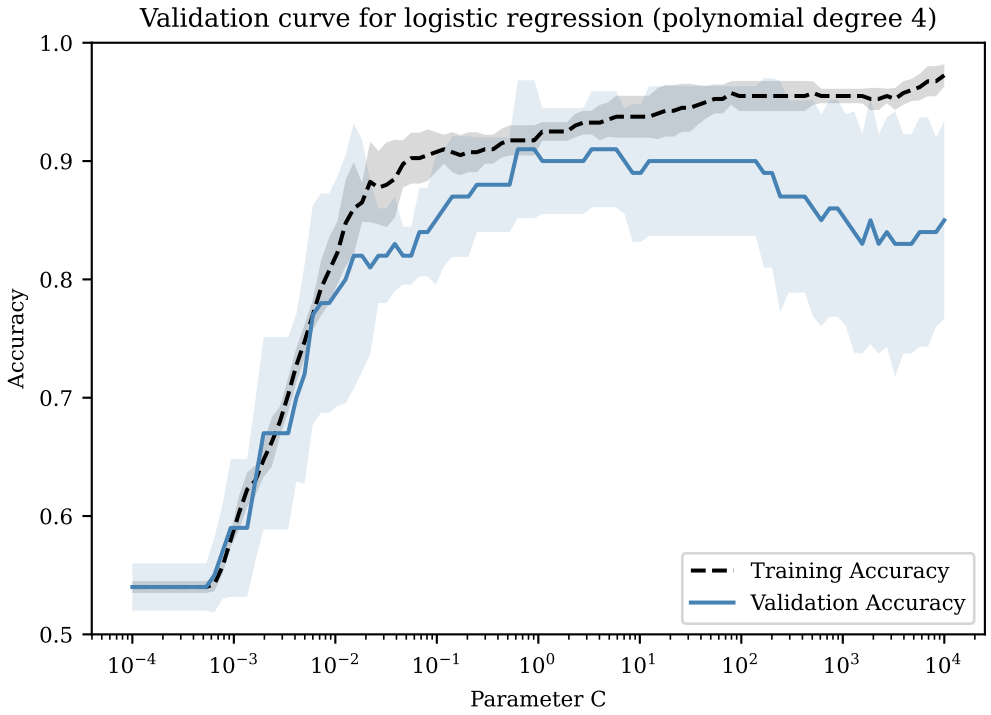
# Parameter name
param_name = 'logisticregression__C'

# Compute validation curve
train_scores, test_scores = validation_curve(
    estimator=pipe_lr_validation,  # Estimator pipeline
    X=X_train,  # Training data
    y=y_train,  # Training labels
    param_name=param_name,  # Parameter name for C in pipeline
    param_range=param_range,  # Range of C values to evaluate
    cv=cv,  # Same stratified folds as in the grid search
    scoring=scoring,  # Same scoring rule as in the grid search
    n_jobs=4,  # Number of parallel jobs
)
```

The module `lecture4_plots` implements the function `plot_accuracy_validation_curve()` which we can use to plot the validation curve for a given range of parameter values. The lines show mean accuracy across folds. The shaded bands extend one standard deviation above and below the means. We pass the metric name through `score` so that the axis and legend labels match the scoring rule:

[37]:
```
from lecture4_plots import plot_accuracy_validation_curve

plot_accuracy_validation_curve(
    param_range,
    train_scores,
    test_scores,
    score='Accuracy',
    title='Validation curve for logistic regression (polynomial degree 4)',
)
```



As the plot shows, small values of C (large penalty strengths) can lead to underfitting, with low accuracy on both the training and validation folds. At large values of C, higher training accuracy can come with lower validation accuracy, suggesting overfitting.

1.4 Decision trees

Decision trees are nonlinear classifiers that are constructed by splitting the sample in two at each branch according to some criterion (e.g., if feature 1 is larger than a value a). Fitting a decision tree is the process of growing a tree and finding the criteria that split the sample to achieve the largest reduction in impurity. In principle, a tree could be grown until each leaf node is pure, i.e., it contains only observations from a single class. In practice, this can lead to very deep trees which tend to overfit the data, so it's advisable to limit the tree's growth by specifying a maximum depth.

It should be stressed that decision trees are fully nonlinear models, so there is usually no need to expand the feature space using polynomial interactions. Moreover, decision trees are not sensitive to scaling, so we can skip the entire data processing pipeline we used for other classifiers.

Decision trees are implemented in the `DecisionTreeClassifier` class in scikit-learn. We use the same 100 training observations as for logistic regression, so the final test comparison will assess models fitted on the same sample. We grow the tree by fitting it to the training data. For the reasons explained above, we limit the maximum tree depth to 3 by specifying the argument `max_depth=3`. We use `criterion='gini'` to favor splits that produce groups with less mixed class labels, and `random_state=1234` to make the result reproducible when several splits are equally good.

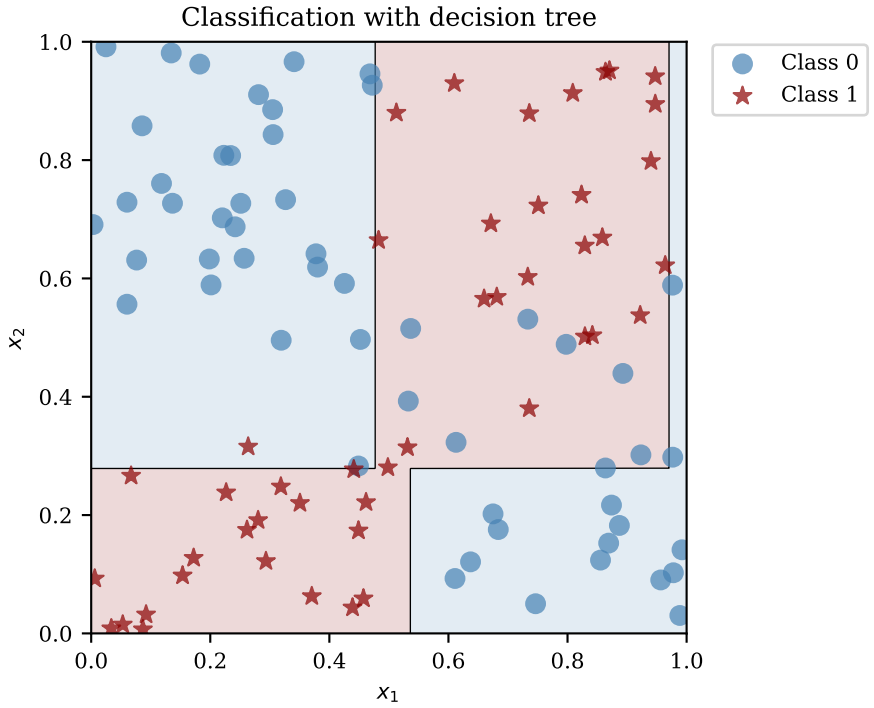
[38]:
```
from sklearn.tree import DecisionTreeClassifier

# Create decision tree classifier
tree = DecisionTreeClassifier(criterion='gini', max_depth=3, random_state=1234)

# Grow tree on training data (no transformation needed)
tree.fit(X_train, y_train)
```

We now plot the decision boundaries of the fitted decision tree. As you can see, the boundaries are all parallel to the axes, which is by construction.

[39]:
```
ax = plot_classes(X_train, y_train)
plot_decision_boundary(ax, xvalues, tree)
_ = ax.set_title('Classification with decision tree')
```



We can compute the tree's training accuracy, precision, recall, and F1 score. As before, these describe the fit to observations already used to grow the tree:

[40]:
```
y_train_pred_tree = tree.predict(X_train)

tabulate_training_metrics(y_train, y_train_pred_tree)
```

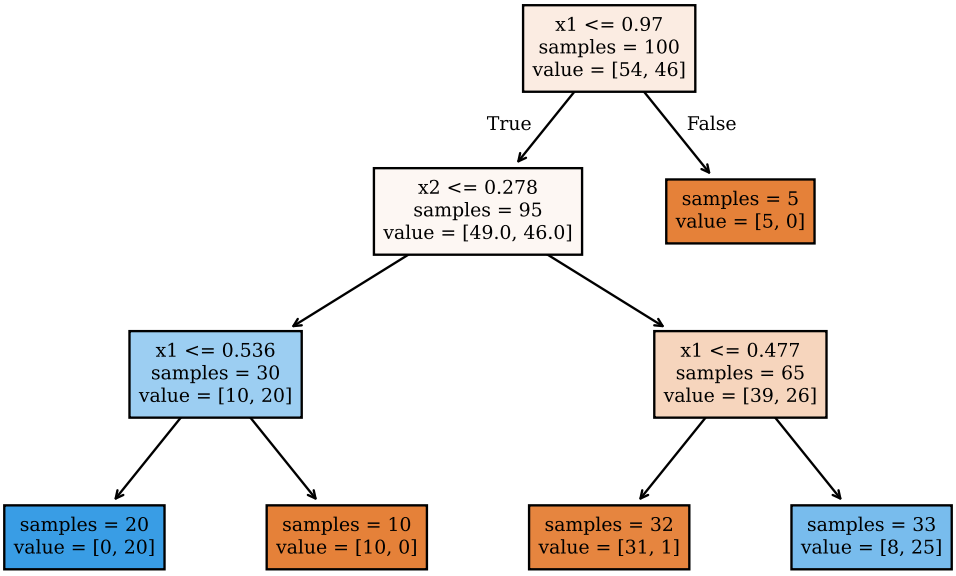
```
Training accuracy:  0.910
Training precision: 0.849
Training recall:    0.978
Training F1 score:  0.909
```

Scikit-learn offers a convenience function that visualizes the fitted tree. At each non-leaf node, the first line states the splitting criterion, the second reports the number of observations at that node, and the third gives the class counts in the order `[class 0, class 1]`. Leaf nodes show only the sample and class counts.

We can follow an observation down the tree by comparing its feature values with the displayed thresholds. A leaf containing observations from only one class is called *pure*.

[41]:
```
import matplotlib.pyplot as plt
from sklearn.tree import plot_tree

# Visualize nodes of fitted decision tree
fig, ax = plt.subplots(figsize=(8, 5))
_ = plot_tree(
    tree, filled=True, feature_names=['x1', 'x2'], fontsize=8, impurity=False, ax=ax
)
```



We fitted the tree above choosing a maximum tree depth ourselves. The tree depth is a hyperparameter, so we should as usual use cross-validation to select its value. To do this, we again use the `GridSearchCV` cross-validator to find the optimal tree depth for this sample. For now, we vary only `max_depth`. The random forest section introduces additional hyperparameters. We reuse the stratified folds and accuracy scoring rule from logistic regression.

[42]:
```
# Create decision tree classifier used for CV
tree = DecisionTreeClassifier(criterion='gini', random_state=1234)

# Define range of values for max_depth
max_depth = np.arange(1, 11)

# Parameter grid for GridSearchCV
param_grid = {'max_depth': max_depth}

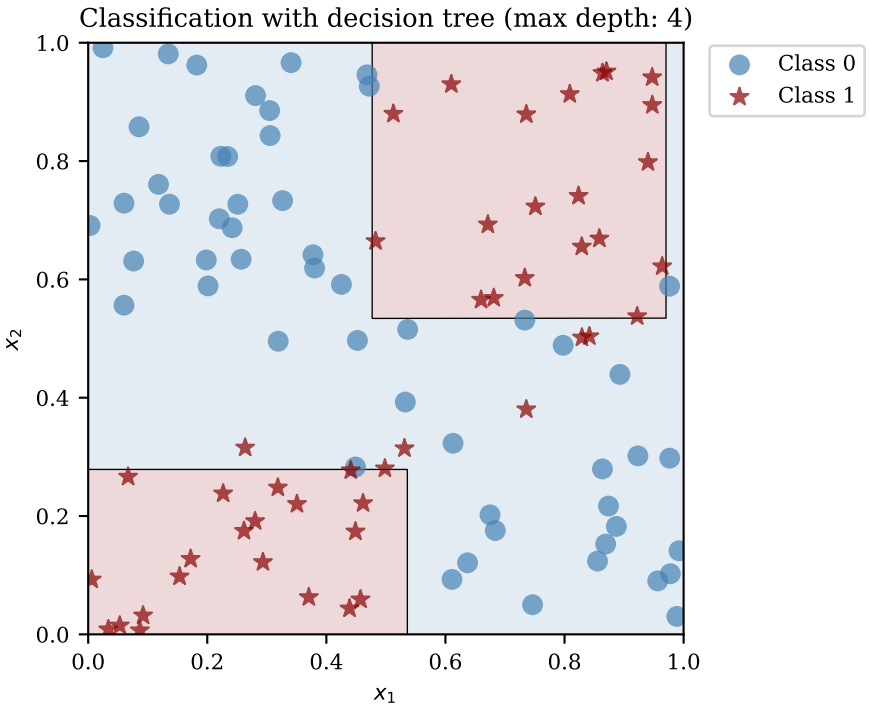
tree_cv = GridSearchCV(
    estimator=tree, param_grid=param_grid, scoring=scoring, cv=cv, refit=True, n_jobs=4
).fit(X_train, y_train)

print(f'Best validation accuracy: {tree_cv.best_score_:.3f}')
print(f'Best max depth:           {tree_cv.best_params_["max_depth"]}')
```

```
Best validation accuracy: 0.800
Best max depth:           4
```

The output reports the depth selected by cross-validation. We can plot the decision boundary of the tree refitted on all 100 training observations:

[43]:
```
ax = plot_classes(X_train, y_train)
plot_decision_boundary(ax, xvalues, tree_cv)
_ = ax.set_title(
    f'Classification with decision tree (max depth: {tree_cv.best_params_["max_depth"]})'
)
```



The training metrics below show how closely the selected tree fits our sample. We will compare its predictions on new observations with those of the other classifiers in the final test comparison.

[44]:
```
# Predicting using the best decision tree model
y_train_pred_tree = tree_cv.predict(X_train)

tabulate_training_metrics(y_train, y_train_pred_tree)
```

```
Training accuracy:  0.940
Training precision: 1.000
Training recall:    0.870
Training F1 score:  0.930
```

1.5 Random forest

A random forest classifier is an *ensemble method*, which means that we combine predictions from multiple models into a single prediction. Here, we fit multiple decision trees on bootstrap samples of the data, drawn with replacement, and average their predicted class probabilities. This model averaging is intended to lead to less overfitting and higher predictive accuracy. The random forest classifier is implemented in `RandomForestClassifier` in scikit-learn.

Just like decision trees, a random forest can capture nonlinear relationships without polynomial features and does not require feature standardization. We can therefore fit it directly on the original features.

The following hyperparameters control how the algorithm grows and combines the trees:

- `n_estimators`: the number of trees. Averaging more trees makes predictions more stable; beyond some point, additional trees change predictions little.
- `max_features`: the number of features randomly selected as candidates at each split. An integer specifies a count, so `1` considers one feature. A float specifies a fraction of all features, so `1.0` considers all features and `0.5` considers half (rounded down, with a minimum of one). The default `'sqrt'` uses the square root of the total number of features, rounded down; with our two features, it considers one.

- `max_depth`: the maximum tree depth. Smaller values limit complexity; `None` leaves the depth unrestricted.
- `min_samples_leaf`: the minimum number of observations in each leaf. Larger values prevent the tree from creating very small terminal groups.
- `min_samples_split`: the minimum number of observations a node needs before we consider splitting it. This does not set a minimum size for each child.

`max_depth`, `min_samples_leaf`, and `min_samples_split` also apply to a single decision tree. For example, `min_samples_split=10` can allow a node with ten observations to split into groups of one and nine. Setting `min_samples_leaf=5` rules out that split because both resulting groups must contain at least five observations.

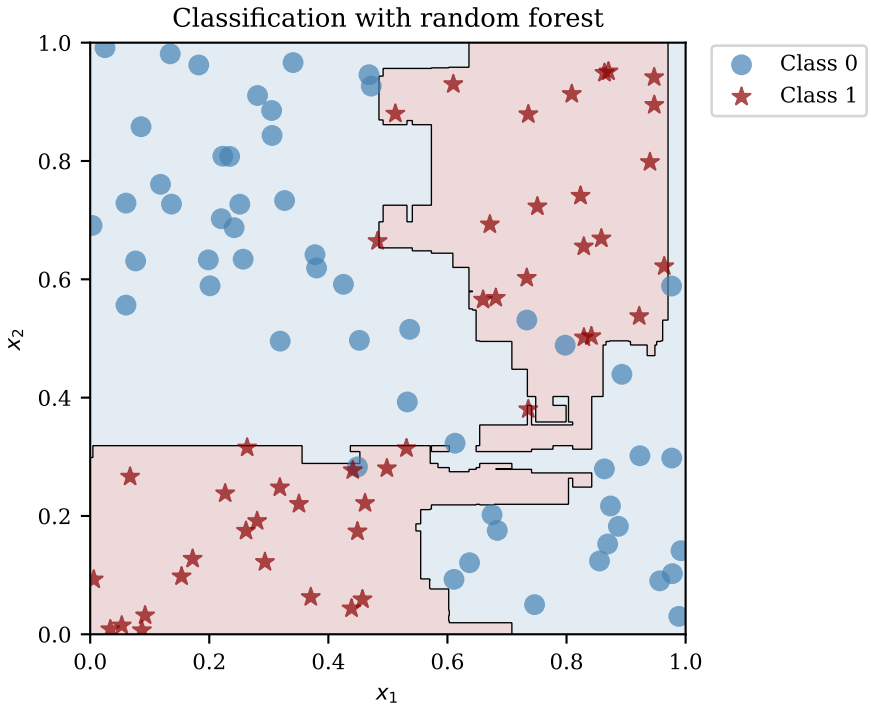
[45]:
```
from sklearn.ensemble import RandomForestClassifier

# Create random forest classifier, fit on training data
forest = RandomForestClassifier(
    n_estimators=100,  # Number of trees in the forest
    max_depth=3,  # Maximum depth of each tree
    random_state=1234,  # Random seed for bootstrapping and feature selection
    n_jobs=4,  # Number of parallel jobs to run for both fit and predict
)

# Fit the random forest model on the training data
forest.fit(X_train, y_train)
```

Compared to a single decision tree, the random forest leads to more granular decision boundaries which are due to the averaging of many decision trees.

[46]:
```
ax = plot_classes(X_train, y_train)
plot_decision_boundary(ax, xvalues, forest)
_ = ax.set_title('Classification with random forest')
```



We can compute the random forest's training accuracy, precision, recall, and F1 score in the same way:

[47]:
```
y_train_pred_forest = forest.predict(X_train)

tabulate_training_metrics(y_train, y_train_pred_forest)
```

```
Training accuracy:  0.960
Training precision: 0.938
Training recall:    0.978
Training F1 score:  0.957
```

We use `GridSearchCV()` to select the maximum tree depth and number of trees. We try depths from 5 to 15 and tree counts from 100 to 190 in steps of 10, giving $11 \times 10 = 110$ combinations. Each candidate uses the same five stratified folds and accuracy scoring rule as before.

We leave the other forest parameters at their defaults in this example. The hyperparameters listed above give us further ways to control the model in other applications.

Note that we set `n_jobs=1` when constructing the random forest. This is because the random forest itself can be parallelized, but we also parallelize the cross-validation. Setting `n_jobs=-1` for both would oversubscribe the CPU and slow down the computation.

[48]:
```
# Fit each forest with one job; parallelize the grid search below
forest_tune = RandomForestClassifier(random_state=1234, n_jobs=1)

# Candidate ranges for depth and number of trees
max_depth_grid = np.arange(5, 16)
n_estimators_grid = np.arange(100, 200, 10)
param_grid = {'max_depth': max_depth_grid, 'n_estimators': n_estimators_grid}

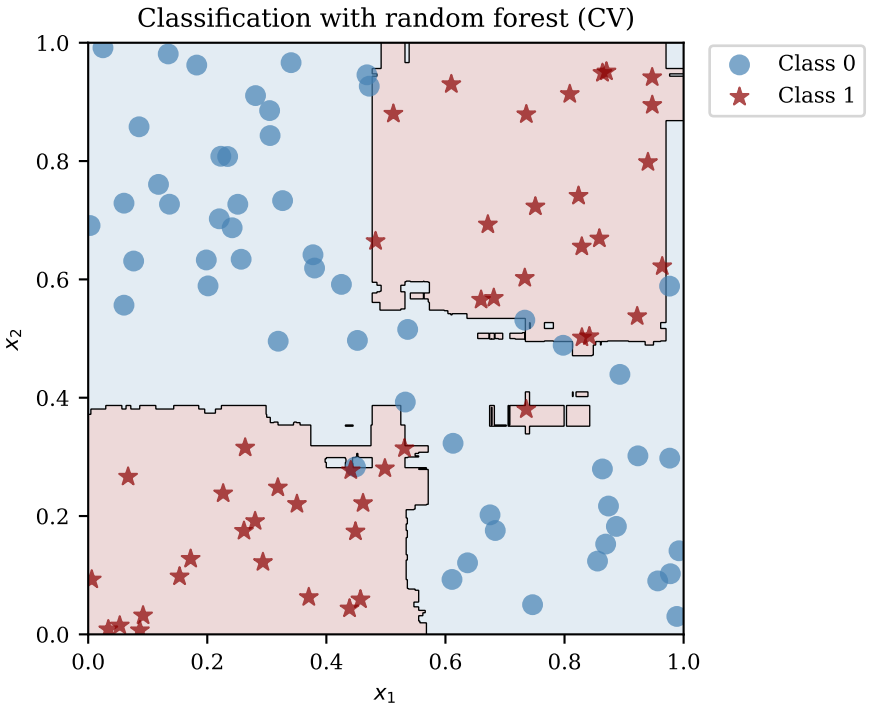
# Create GridSearchCV object for hyperparameter tuning of the random forest
forest_cv = GridSearchCV(
    estimator=forest_tune,
    param_grid=param_grid,
    cv=cv,
    scoring=scoring,
    refit=True,
    n_jobs=4,
)

# Run cross-validation on the original, unscaled features
forest_cv.fit(X_train, y_train)
```

[49]:
```
print(f'Best validation accuracy: {forest_cv.best_score_:.3f}')
for param, value in forest_cv.best_params_.items():
    print(f'Best {param}: {value}')
```

```
Best validation accuracy: 0.880
Best max_depth: 10
Best n_estimators: 180
```

[50]:
```
ax = plot_classes(X_train, y_train)
plot_decision_boundary(ax, xvalues, forest_cv)
_ = ax.set_title('Classification with random forest (CV)')
```



[51]:
```
y_train_pred_forest_cv = forest_cv.predict(X_train)

tabulate_training_metrics(y_train, y_train_pred_forest_cv)
```

```
Training accuracy:  1.000
Training precision: 1.000
Training recall:    1.000
Training F1 score:  1.000
```

Here, all four training metrics equal 1 because the refitted forest classifies every training observation correctly. Deep trees can isolate individual observations, including noisy labels, and averaging their predictions can preserve this fit.

In cross-validation, each forest predicts observations excluded from its training fold, which explains why validation accuracy is lower. A perfect training fit alone does not tell us whether the selected forest is too complex: we judge its predictive performance using cross-validation and the independent test sample below.

1.6 Comparing predictions on new observations

We have now fitted and tuned the main classifiers using the same 100 training observations. We generate 10,000 independent test observations from the same process, with the same noise level, using a separate random generator. This larger test sample makes the comparison less sensitive to chance variation in the test observations.

We use the fitted models directly to predict these new observations. The test sample has played no part in fitting the models or selecting hyperparameters.

[52]:
```
# Generate a large independent test sample after fitting all main models
rng_test = np.random.default_rng(seed=5678)
X_test, y_test = create_class_data(N=10_000, sigma=sigma_eps, rng=rng_test)
```

The tables below compare the classifiers selected by cross-validation using accuracy, precision, recall, and F1 score for the training sample and the same independent test sample. The training table also includes the mean validation accuracy used to select hyperparameters in the `CV ACC` column. The CV

scores describe models trained within the folds; the training and test metrics evaluate the final models refitted on all 100 training observations.

Here, the classes are approximately balanced and we count mistakes in both classes equally, so we use accuracy to select hyperparameters. We report all four metrics to show different aspects of model performance. We use these tables to assess the fitted models without changing their hyperparameters after seeing the test scores. A different training sample could change the ranking, even with a large test sample.

[53]:
```
# Compare models selected by cross-validation
models = {
    'Logistic, CV': lr_cv,
    'Decision tree, CV': tree_cv,
    'Random forest, CV': forest_cv,
}

# Report the same four metrics for the training and test samples
samples = {'Training': (X_train, y_train), 'Test': (X_test, y_test)}

for sample_name, (X_sample, y_sample) in samples.items():
    print(f'\n{sample_name} sample:')
    header = (
        f'{"Model":<25} {"Accuracy":>10} {"Precision":>10} {"Recall":>10} '
        f'{"F1 score":>10}'
    )
    if sample_name == 'Training':
        header += f' {"CV ACC":>10}'
    print(header)
    for name, model in models.items():
        y_sample_pred = model.predict(X_sample)
        acc = accuracy_score(y_sample, y_sample_pred)
        pre = precision_score(y_sample, y_sample_pred)
        rec = recall_score(y_sample, y_sample_pred)
        f1 = f1_score(y_sample, y_sample_pred)

        row = f'{name:<25} {acc:10.3f} {pre:10.3f} {rec:10.3f} {f1:10.3f}'
        if sample_name == 'Training':
            cv_text = f'{model.best_score_:.3f}'
            row += f' {cv_text:>10}'
        print(row)
```

```
Training sample:
Model                     Accuracy  Precision     Recall   F1 score     CV ACC
Logistic, CV                 0.930      0.915      0.935      0.925      0.910
Decision tree, CV            0.940      1.000      0.870      0.930      0.800
Random forest, CV            1.000      1.000      1.000      1.000      0.880

Test sample:
Model                     Accuracy  Precision     Recall   F1 score
Logistic, CV                 0.842      0.874      0.796      0.833
Decision tree, CV            0.803      0.896      0.684      0.776
Random forest, CV            0.831      0.869      0.777      0.820
```

1.7 Support vector machines (SVM)

We now turn to support vector machines, which classify observations by finding a decision boundary with a wide *margin*, or buffer zone, between the classes. We balance the width of this margin against a penalty for observations that lie inside it or on the wrong side of the boundary. The observations that determine the fitted boundary are called *support vectors*. `scikit-learn` offers several implementations

of SVMs that differ in the underlying algorithm and capabilities. We focus on the `SVC` (support vector classifier) class which supports both linear and nonlinear kernels.

Just like logistic regression, `SVC` uses the regularization parameter C. However, SVMs offer additional flexibility in that they support various kernels. A kernel measures similarity between observations in a way that lets the SVM work implicitly in a different feature space. For example, we might have a classification problem like the one we studied above, where the classes 0 and 1 clearly cannot be separated by a single linear boundary. Instead of adding polynomial interactions, with SVMs we can specify a nonlinear kernel in the hope that once the features have been represented in this implicit feature space, the individual classes become much easier to separate.

1.7.1 Linear kernel

We use exactly the same 100 training observations and 10,000 independent test observations as for logistic regression, decision trees, and random forests. We keep the same noise level and reuse the same stratified CV folds, so the results are directly comparable.

We first fit the SVM specifications and examine their training predictions. After tuning, we extend the earlier test comparison with the tuned RBF SVM. We start with the simplest linear kernel which is selected using the `kernel='linear'` argument.

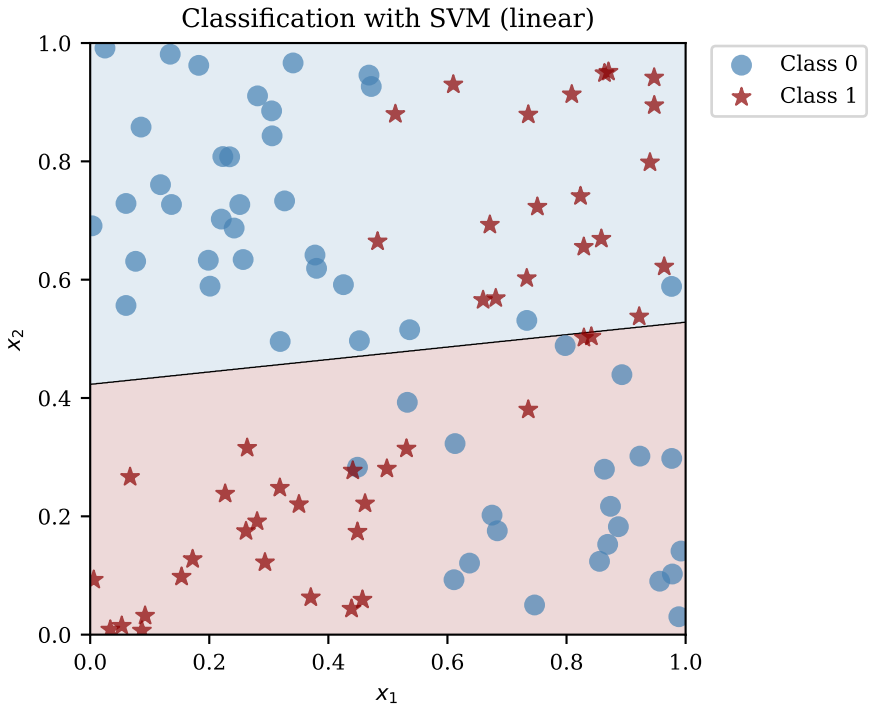
[54]:
```
from sklearn.svm import SVC

# Create pipeline with linear SVM
pipe_svm = make_pipeline(StandardScaler(), SVC(kernel='linear', C=1.0))

# Fit the linear SVM model on the training data
pipe_svm.fit(X_train, y_train)
```

Plotting the decision boundaries, we see that the linear kernel leads to a single linear decision boundary:

[55]:
```
xvalues = np.linspace(0, 1, 1000)
ax = plot_classes(X_train, y_train)
plot_decision_boundary(ax, xvalues, pipe_svm)
_ = ax.set_title('Classification with SVM (linear)')
```



We can compute training accuracy, precision, recall, and F1 score for this linear decision boundary. As with linear logistic regression, the model has limited flexibility for our nonlinear classification problem:

[56]:
```
y_train_pred_svm = pipe_svm.predict(X_train)

tabulate_training_metrics(y_train, y_train_pred_svm)
```

```
Training accuracy:  0.590
Training precision: 0.553
Training recall:    0.565
Training F1 score:  0.559
```

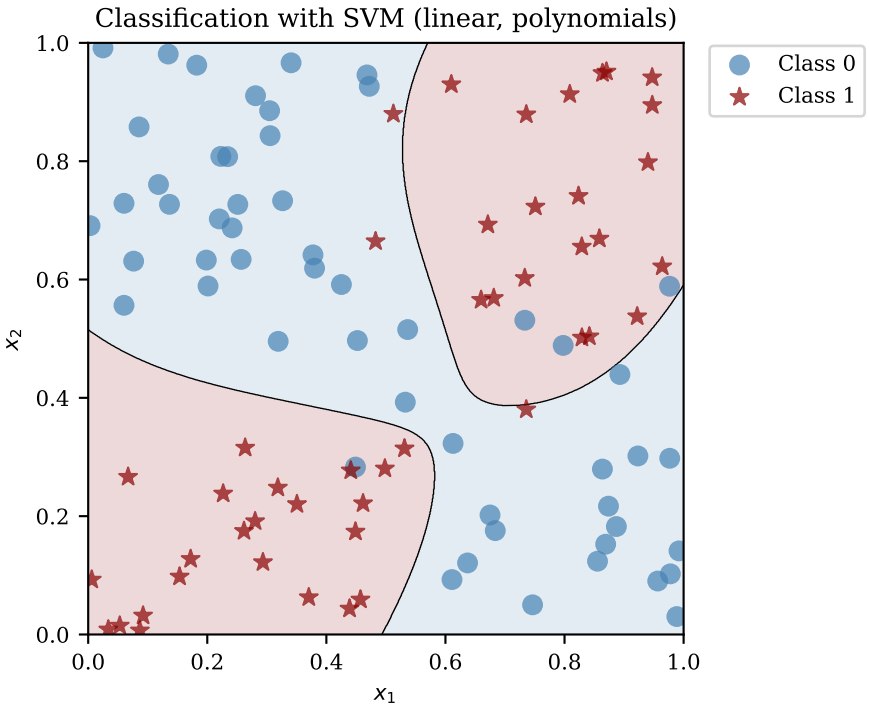
As with logistic regression, we can easily augment this model by adding polynomial interactions of features:

[57]:
```
# Maximum polynomial degree
degree = 5

# Create pipeline with polynomial features and SVM
pipe_svm_poly = make_pipeline(
    StandardScaler(),
    PolynomialFeatures(degree=degree, include_bias=False),
    StandardScaler(),
    SVC(kernel='linear', C=1.0),
)

# Fit the polynomial SVM model on the training data
pipe_svm_poly.fit(X_train, y_train)
```

[58]:
```
xvalues = np.linspace(0, 1, 1000)
ax = plot_classes(X_train, y_train)
plot_decision_boundary(ax, xvalues, pipe_svm_poly)
_ = ax.set_title('Classification with SVM (linear, polynomials)')
```



We compute training accuracy, precision, recall, and F1 score to assess the fit of this more flexible model:

[59]:
```
y_train_pred_svm = pipe_svm_poly.predict(X_train)

tabulate_training_metrics(y_train, y_train_pred_svm)
```

```
Training accuracy:  0.930
Training precision: 0.915
Training recall:    0.935
Training F1 score:  0.925
```

As expected, the polynomial features allow a more flexible decision boundary and lead to a better fit to the training observations.

1.7.2 Gaussian kernel

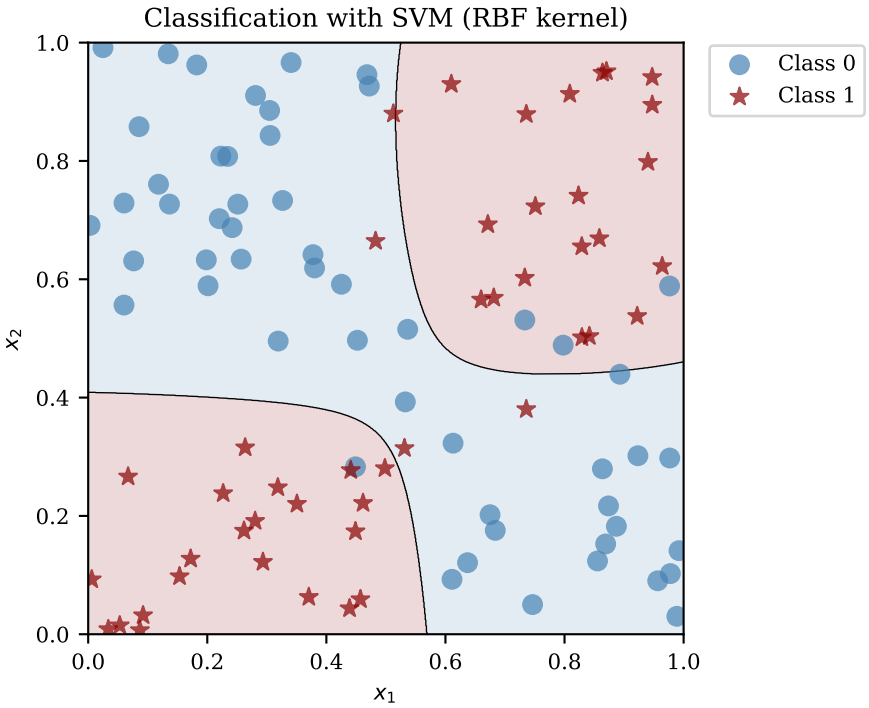
However, it is not necessary to introduce polynomial features with SVM. Alternatively, we can operate with just the two original features, but choose a different kernel. By default, the kernel used by `SVC` is `kernel='rbf'` which stands for the *radial basis function*. This kernel is also called the Gaussian kernel.

We rerun the above code, omitting the polynomial features but instead selecting the Gaussian kernel:

[60]:
```
# Create SVM with RBF kernel
pipe_svm_rbf = make_pipeline(StandardScaler(), SVC(kernel='rbf', C=1.0, gamma='scale'))

# Fit the SVM model with RBF kernel on the training data
pipe_svm_rbf.fit(X_train, y_train)
```

[61]:
```
ax = plot_classes(X_train, y_train)
plot_decision_boundary(ax, xvalues, pipe_svm_rbf)
_ = ax.set_title('Classification with SVM (RBF kernel)')
```



We can compute the same four training metrics for the Gaussian kernel. After tuning, the final test comparison will show how the selected RBF model performs on new observations:

[62]:
```
y_train_pred_svm = pipe_svm_rbf.predict(X_train)

tabulate_training_metrics(y_train, y_train_pred_svm)
```

```
Training accuracy:  0.920
Training precision: 0.913
Training recall:    0.913
Training F1 score:  0.913
```

So far, we have used fixed SVM hyperparameters. For the RBF kernel, we now tune both:

1. `C`, the inverse regularization penalty strength; and
2. `gamma`, which scales the squared Euclidean distance between feature vectors.

We use `GridSearchCV()` to evaluate all combinations of 50 values of `C` and 50 values of `gamma`. As with the other classifiers, we use the same five shuffled, stratified folds and accuracy scoring rule.

[63]:
```
pipe_svm_rbf = make_pipeline(StandardScaler(), SVC(kernel='rbf'))

# Define range of values for C and gamma, spaced uniformly in logs
param_range = np.logspace(-1, 1, 50)

# Define param_grid argument for GridSearchCV
param_grid = {'svc__C': param_range, 'svc__gamma': param_range}

# Create grid search cross-validation object, run cross-validation
svm_rbf_cv = GridSearchCV(
    estimator=pipe_svm_rbf,  # Model to tune
    param_grid=param_grid,  # Dictionary of hyperparameter grids
    cv=cv,  # Same stratified folds as for the other classifiers
    scoring=scoring,  # Same scoring rule as for the other classifiers
    refit=True,  # Refit best model
    n_jobs=4,  # Number of parallel jobs
).fit(X_train, y_train)
```

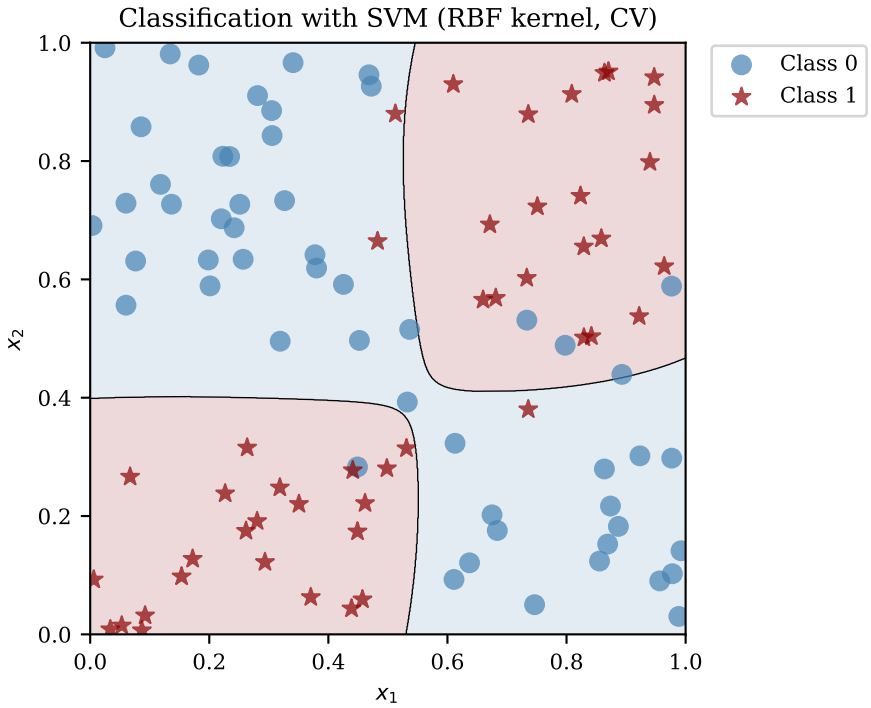
The best accuracy score and the optimal parameter values can be retrieved from the attributes `best_score_` and `best_params_`:

[64]:
```
print(f'Best validation accuracy: {svm_rbf_cv.best_score_:.3f}')
print(f'Best C:                   {svm_rbf_cv.best_params_["svc__C"]:.3f}')
print(f'Best gamma:               {svm_rbf_cv.best_params_["svc__gamma"]:.3f}')
```

```
Best validation accuracy: 0.930
Best C:                   6.866
Best gamma:               0.373
```

Finally, we can plot the decision boundaries for the cross-validated SVM model:

[65]:
```
ax = plot_classes(X_train, y_train)
plot_decision_boundary(ax, xvalues, svm_rbf_cv)
_ = ax.set_title('Classification with SVM (RBF kernel, CV)')
```



We now extend the earlier comparison with the tuned RBF SVM. The ranking describes this particular training sample and may change with a different draw.

[66]:
```python
# Copy the main comparison and add the SVM selected by cross-validation
models_with_svm = models.copy()
models_with_svm['SVM, RBF CV'] = svm_rbf_cv

# Report the same four metrics for the training and test samples
samples = {'Training': (X_train, y_train), 'Test': (X_test, y_test)}
for sample_name, (X_sample, y_sample) in samples.items():
    print(f'\n{sample_name} sample:')
    header = (
        f'{"Model":<25} {"Accuracy":>10} {"Precision":>10} {"Recall":>10} '
        f'{"F1 score":>10}'
    )
    if sample_name == 'Training':
        header += f' {"CV ACC":>10}'
    print(header)
    for name, model in models_with_svm.items():
        y_sample_pred = model.predict(X_sample)
        acc = accuracy_score(y_sample, y_sample_pred)
        pre = precision_score(y_sample, y_sample_pred)
        rec = recall_score(y_sample, y_sample_pred)
        f1 = f1_score(y_sample, y_sample_pred)

        row = f'{name:<25} {acc:10.3f} {pre:10.3f} {rec:10.3f} {f1:10.3f}'
        if sample_name == 'Training':
            cv_text = f'{model.best_score_:.3f}'
            row += f' {cv_text:>10}'
        print(row)
```

```
Training sample:
Model                       Accuracy  Precision     Recall   F1 score     CV ACC
Logistic, CV                   0.930      0.915      0.935      0.925      0.910
Decision tree, CV              0.940      1.000      0.870      0.930      0.800
Random forest, CV              1.000      1.000      1.000      1.000      0.880
```

```
SVM, RBF CV                    0.920      0.896      0.935      0.915      0.930

Test sample:
Model                       Accuracy  Precision     Recall   F1 score
Logistic, CV                   0.842      0.874      0.796      0.833
Decision tree, CV              0.803      0.896      0.684      0.776
Random forest, CV              0.831      0.869      0.777      0.820
SVM, RBF CV                    0.842      0.854      0.824      0.838
```

The tuned SVM achieves similar test accuracy to logistic regression, with higher recall and a slightly higher F1 score in this example.

1.8 List of functions and classes used in this lecture

The following list contains the central functions and classes covered in this lecture. Each name is linked to the official API documentation, which you can consult for more details regarding arguments and return values. The "go to section" links lead to the relevant section in this notebook.

1.8.1 Scikit-learn classification models

- `LogisticRegression()`: Class for fitting logistic regression models. [go to section]
- `LogisticRegressionCV()`: Class for fitting logistic regression models with built-in cross-validation. [go to section]
- `DecisionTreeClassifier()`: Class for fitting decision tree classifiers. [go to section]
- `RandomForestClassifier()`: Class for fitting random forest classifiers. [go to section]
- `SVC()`: Class for fitting support vector machine classifiers. [go to section]

1.8.2 Scikit-learn metrics and visualization

- `accuracy_score()`: Function for computing classification accuracy. [go to section]
- `precision_score()`: Function for computing precision. [go to section]
- `recall_score()`: Function for computing recall. [go to section]
- `f1_score()`: Function for computing the F1 score. [go to section]
- `ConfusionMatrixDisplay`: Class for visualizing confusion matrices. [go to section]
- `plot_tree()`: Function for visualizing decision trees. [go to section]

1.8.3 Scikit-learn model selection and evaluation

- `train_test_split()`: Function for demonstrating a stratified training and test split. [go to section]
- `GridSearchCV()`: Class for performing grid search with cross-validation. [go to section]
- `StratifiedKFold()`: Class for defining folds with approximately equal class proportions. [go to section]
- `validation_curve()`: Function for computing validation curves. [go to section]